

phrase is moved out of the subject NP and an adjunct PP. Since neither the subject nor the adjunct is properly governed, 15a-b are ruled out by the CED.

The basic case of government is that of a complement being governed by a head, e.g. the case of a verb governing its complement. The investigation of the locality requirements on various syntactic relations has led to a more inclusive definition of this notion. For example, in 5b, *her* is not a complement of *expects*; yet the latter assigns Case to the former. Hence the head-complement relation is too strong as a necessary condition for Case assignment. This kind of consideration led to the definition of government in ex. 1, above. Further research on syntactic relations naturally leads to new hypotheses on the definition of government and its role in syntactic theory.

In Chomsky 1986, for example, government is a more derivative relation, defined in terms of the more basic notion of BARRIER. As seen in 13, i.e. the CED, certain maximal projections constitute barriers for movement. Chomsky 1986 extends the CED so that it subsumes the Subjacency Condition of Chomsky 1973; further, he proposes to unify the locality conditions for movement and government, hypothesizing that those maximal projections that constitute barriers for movement constitute barriers for government as well. He proposes there that the SISTERHOOD relation—one more restricted than that of government—is necessary for theta-marking to obtain. Barriers are roughly those maximal projections that are not theta-marked by a lexical category. They block movement as well as government, the latter being defined roughly as follows.

- (16) α governs β : Every maximal projection dominating α dominates β , and there is no barrier that dominates β but not α .

The definition of government is thus changed; but it continues to play an important theoretical role, defining locality requirements on various syntactic relations.

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GOVERNMENT/BINDING THEORY (GB) is an approach to syntax that stems in large part from the ideas and results reported in Chomsky 1981. Although the following discussion is focused on the model developed in that work, it should be noted that proposals regarded as contributing to GB often depart from it in many respects—even including the definition of the term GOVERNMENT and the relevance of BINDING [*qq.v.*]. In actual usage, the term GB is applied to work which pursues the goals and style of explanation described below, and which assumes certain technical hypotheses as common ground, even when many of these hypotheses are challenged or rejected. (For reference, see Sells 1985, Riemsdijk & Williams 1986, Chomsky 1988.)

1. Goals. GB seeks to describe principles of syntax that appear to be invariant across languages—and which are hence, by hypothesis, innate—and to characterize in a precise manner the PARAMETERS of possible variation among languages. GB is thus an attempt at a theory both of U[niversal] G[rammar] and of the structure of particular grammars. [See Formal Grammar.] For example, one parameter of variation among languages concerns whether a question like *What did Mary read?* involves movement of a WH-word to initial position, as in English or Vata, or retains the word order characteristic of declarative sentences, as in Japanese or Lakhota. In both types of languages, however, we find certain identical restrictions on the structural configurations in which various WH-words may occur [see Subjacency]. These restrictions are taken to reflect the contribution of principles of UG.

2. Style of explanation. Many of the principles developed in GB are highly abstract, and do not correspond in any direct way to familiar notions from earlier syntactic theories like ‘construction’ (e.g. ‘the Passive construction’) or ‘rule’ (e.g. ‘the Passive rule’). Instead, each principle of grammar may affect the well-formedness of a wide variety of structures. This property of GB has an important impact on the shape of the theory as a whole.

To give a concrete example: Certain principles that determine the well-formedness of ANAPHORS [see Anaphora], like the reflexive *herself*, also seem to de-

termine, indirectly, the applicability of certain transformational movement rules [see Transformations]. Thus the distinction between the passive sentences 1a-b is mirrored by a comparable contrast with reflexive pronouns in 2a-b. (Chomsky 1981 traced these contrasts to the way that government properties of finite and non-finite clauses interact with the theory of binding.) The *t* is the TRACE left by movement of *Mary* from the embedded subject position [see Traces]:

(1a) *Mary was believed [t to be happy].*

(1b) **Mary was believed [t was happy].*

(2a) *Mary believed [herself to be happy].*

(2b) **Mary believed [herself was happy].*

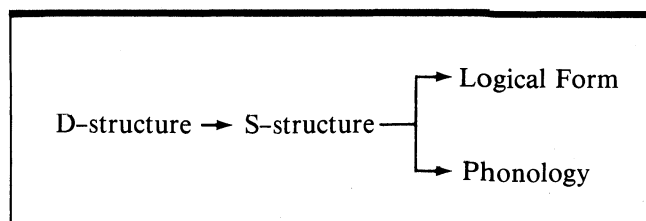
Here a single grammatical principle seems to play a role in two superficially distinct 'constructions'. Noting that very many properties of individual constructions can be explained by principles that also apply to other constructions, GB suggests that all properties of individual constructions may have this character.

The grammar thus contains no notion like 'Passive construction', nor any explicit 'Passive rule'. Instead, the grammar characterizes as well-formed any syntactic structure that does not violate any of the various principles. Among the syntactic structures that do not violate any grammatical principles in English happen to be passive sentences, but the notion 'Passive construction' has no place whatsoever in the grammar.

As a consequence, the grammar contains only the most general rules for transformational movement (e.g. 'Move alpha', i.e. 'Move something somewhere') or for anaphora. The burden of grammatical explanation falls instead on the interaction of principles, which act as FILTERS [q.v.] on structures that may involve anaphora or movement. Thus, in a GB approach, the explanation for any particular datum is very likely to involve several quite distinct principles drawn from different MODULES of the grammar. (This style of explanation is thus often called 'modular'.) Consequently, minor differences in the application of these principles in different languages can be expected to lead to rather widespread variation among these languages. Much cross-language variation, it is suggested, arises from just such minor differences.

3. The GB model. GB analyses often argue for a number of LEVELS OF REPRESENTATION [see D-structure; S-structure; Grammatical Meaning], where general rules (like 'Move alpha') map each level to the next. Figure

FIGURE 1. The 'Classical' GB Model



1 shows the 'classical' or 'T' model of Chomsky 1981. There has been lively debate over the existence of D-structure and Logical Form, and other levels are occasionally proposed.

Among the principles that figure prominently in GB work are those of X-BAR THEORY [see Phrase Structure], BOUNDING THEORY [see Subjacency], the theory of GOVERNMENT [q.v.], THETA-THEORY (where 'theta' is intended to suggest 'Thematic roles' like Agent or Goal) [see Lexicon; Subcategorization and Selection], the theory of BINDING [q.v.], CASE THEORY [see Filters], and the theory of CONTROL [q.v.]. This list is far from fixed.

4. Comparison with other syntactic theories. Much work in G[eneralized] P[hrase-] S[tructure] G[rammar] [q.v.] shares GB's modular style of explanation and the abstract nature of the principles assumed. GB analyses often differ at a technical level from GPSG analyses in the common ground of principles assumed—e.g. in the exploitation of multiple levels of representation, and in the choice of transformational movement vs. PERCOLATION of features in the analysis of various constructions.

GB theory has borrowed a number of specific analyses first proposed within Relational Grammar [q.v.]; these have been incorporated within GB's common ground of assumptions. GB work shares with Relational Grammar a concern with cross-linguistic variation, and with the development of a substantive theory of UG.

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